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POLITICAL GOALS OF PERUVIAN STUDENTS: THE FOUNDATIONS OF LEGITIMACY IN EDUCATION

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The hypotheses of three alternative models of education's role in political socialization—Marxist functionalism, rational-action theory, and Weberian perspectives—are presented to illuminate the reasons behind one of Latin America's most enigmatic rebellions of youths: Peru's Sendero Luminoso. *These hypotheses were tested using data from a survey of graduating secondary-school students in the Cuzco area. The students were asked to choose from among five solutions to their nation's problems: "social revolution," "more education," "change of government," "eliminating corruption," and "other." The analysis of these data shows the factors that determined the students' preferences for revolutionary change over education and the viability of the various hypotheses in explaining these preferences.*

What leads individuals to reject "socially legitimate" methods for the pursuit of their goals? Under what conditions are they more likely to prefer structural change in their society? These questions logically precede the general question of why rebellions occur. Before it is possible to study the requisites of collective action and its basis in group cooperation, the preconditions for rebellion need to be understood at the level of individual participation. This article explores several factors that led students in Peru's highland region to see revolt, as opposed to educational expansion, as the most desirable solution to their nation's problems.

Readers who are familiar with the ongoing guerrilla warfare waged in the Peruvian Andes by *Sendero Luminoso* ("shining path") will recognize that the inquiry is of more than academic interest. As an insurrection, *Sendero Luminoso* is unique in Latin America, almost an enigma, arising as it did *after* what most observers agree was a radical agrarian reform in the 1970s. The movement is tied to no "above-ground" national or foreign political party. Its leaders reject outright the Cuban model, copying, instead, the strategies and ideals of Mao Tze Dung and the Chinese cultural revolution. The movement originated in the teachers' colleges and secondary schools of the highlands, in poor regions of indigenous language and culture, remote from Lima's well-organized urban proletariat. Described variously as "millenarian" and "messianic," the movement, by most accounts, has attracted a disproportionate number of young participants (see Degregori 1985; Favre 1987; McClintock 1984; Palmer 1986; Skocpol 1981; Taylor 1983).

This article focuses on general factors that explain the Peruvian revolt. Rather than explore the membership or history of this particular insurrection, it attempts to understand the foundation of the revolt: the acceptance of rebellion by highland youths, especially their preference for rebellion over the ameliorative remedies that were promised them through the institution of education. The article begins by discussing three possible theoretical approaches to the students' political goals—Marxist functionalism, rational-action theory, and Weberian interpretations—each of which views the social institution of education as having legitimating effects on the civic consciousness of individuals. It then reports on a survey conducted in Cuzco, Peru's most populous highland region, of students who were finishing secondary school. An analysis of these data shows the factors that determine the students' preference for revolutionary change over education in resolving national problems. Conclusions then are drawn about the validity of these alternative models in explaining political preferences, as well as the possible compatibility of the three approaches.

The author expresses his gratitude to Charles Bidwell, M.J. Bowman, John Craig, Jon Elster, Hernán Fernandez, and Luis Soberón for their many helpful comments on his research. Address all correspondence to David Post, School of Education, University of California, Riverside, CA 92521.

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THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVES

Marxist Functionalism

Marx was silent on the effect of education in developing or dampening revolutionary consciousness and revolutionary movements. "The ideas of the ruling class are in every epoch the ruling ideas," he wrote (Marx 1975:59). Because he saw a necessary correspondence between workers' states of consciousness and their domination, Marx assigned no independent role, progressive or conservative, to the institution of education. Rather, he stated: "The class which has the means of material production at its disposal, consequently also controls the means of mental production, so that the ideas of those who lack the means of mental production are on the whole subject to it" (Marx 1975:59). Since Gramsci, however, Marxists have viewed the correspondence between the school and society as a two-way relationship. The status quo is to be explained by schooling in addition to explaining it. As Gramsci (1971:350) noted, "Every relationship of 'hegemony' is necessarily an educational relationship." Accordingly, the formation of ideas and attitudes about an existing society is considered to be a result of asymmetric relationships between power elites and young people—relationships that are exemplified, above all, in a nation's school system.

Although some Marxists have considered a hegemony of ideas sufficient for the immediate generation of the consciousness that perpetuates a society, other theorists emphasize an intermediate and indirect influence, through institutions. Thus, Cohen (1978:45), in a major clarification of Marxist functionalism, wrote, "The superstructure consists of legal, political, religious, and other non-economic *institutions*. It probably includes universities, but it does not include knowledge, for knowledge is not an institution." According to Cohen's reading of Marx, the correspondence between social location and consciousness might not be due to the direct effort of any ruling group. Once in place, however, this correspondence is sustained through the power of the ruling class over institutions. Cohen (1978:290) quoted from Marx's *Theories of Surplus Value* to illustrate the point:

> When a high state functionary, reflecting on the unequal distribution of information in society, concludes that "this inequality of knowledge has become necessary for the maintenance of all social inequalities *which give rise to it,*" he may be expected to see to the persistence of an educational structure which reproduces ignorance in the right places.

"Ignorant" beliefs, then, occur not merely from a random unavailability of knowledge, bad luck, or the lack of an opportunity to develop informed belief. When ignorance perpetuates domination, domination also—through institutions—constrains knowledge. For, as Cohen argued, "if awareness of the true name of the game penetrates too far down the elite it could leak into the strata beneath them" (Cohen 1978:290–291).

In North America, the best-known application of Marxist functionalism in education is by Bowles and Gintis (1976:129):

> Schooling fosters and rewards the development of certain capacities and the expression of certain needs, while thwarting and penalizing others. Through these institutional relationships, the educational system tailors the self-concepts, aspirations, and social class identifications of individuals to the requirements of the social division of labor.

The foremost statement of this view in Peruvian sociology, which anticipated and preceded the work of Bowles and Gintis, was by Alberti et al. (1974:14): "The educational system legitimates the status quo and prepares individuals—ideologically, motivationally, and technically—to assume roles that the maintenance of this same system requires." [Author's translation from the Spanish.]

Rational-Action Theory

Rational-action theory presents a critique of functionalism and, when applied by Marxists, a critique of the functional explanation by Marx. Apart from their emphasis on the individual actor, critics of functionalism also want to know what mechanisms are responsible for the generation and diffusion of ideologies. There is considerable ambiguity in a functionalist view, such as the one held by Cohen (1978), of what accounts for any *particular* individual's adherence to ignorant (ideological) beliefs. Cohen stated merely that "there is always a mix of manipulation, self-deception, and blind conviction in adherence to an ideology" (p. 291). Critics have begun to insist that a causal connection be

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specified between beliefs and some hypothetical cause of those beliefs.

Rational-action theory has been applied in the sociology of education by numerous critics of Marxist perspectives, both sympathetic and not. For example, refusing to use effects to explain causes of vocational choices, Boudon (1982) adopted game theory to interpret the preferences of French students for a university education as opposed to technical education. The public school curriculum often has been assumed to shape attitudes about society, thereby helping to reproduce the domination of the ruling class. That this reproduction *alone* ever could explain a particular curriculum has been questioned by Liston (1984). Dale (1986) tried to make Marxist conceptions more precise by defining ideology partly in terms of its content: to qualify as an ideology, a belief must be false.

Leading the movement away from functionalist interpretations of Marx is Elster (1982, 1985), who espouses methodological individualism. Elster (1985:5) stated that "all social phenomena—their structure and their change—are in principle explicable in ways that only involve individuals—their properties, their goals, their beliefs and their actions." He countered Cohen's views with a proposition that "there is no reason to suppose that beliefs that serve certain interests are also to be explained by those interests" (1982:143). In particular, Elster argued that "the mere fact that a belief system has beneficial effects for some social class, e.g. by legitimating its rule, does not in itself create a presumption that these effects can explain the persistence of that system" (1982:144). An ideology, in Elster's view, "is a set of beliefs or values that can be explained through the (noncognitive) interest or position of some social group" (1982:123). Ideology then consists of "beliefs and values that have society as their object as well as their explanation" (1985:464). What type of explanation? Elster favors the causal explanations provided by laboratory research, citing the work of Leon Festinger and Amos Tversky. By drawing on studies in experimental psychology, Elster is able to argue that "socially caused beliefs are not rationally caused" (p. 474). Beliefs, in this view, are distorted as they pass through what Mills (1962) termed "the cultural apparatus." However, in alternative approaches that link actors' social situations with beliefs by drawing on the economics of information (Stigler 1961), the distinction between rational judgment and nonrational ideology seems far less clear.

Weberian Interpretations

Although Marxist explanations of such rebellions as the one in Peru might be based on theories of individual or class consciousness, Weberians focus on the rise and fall of institutions that individuals or classes act on. Weber distinguished between two general bases of social action. People can be governed by their beliefs about the personal utility of their actions or by their beliefs about the existence of a "legitimate order." These two grounds for action may sometimes be related, but Weber thought they could also be conceived independently: one's belief that a system is legitimate is not always reducible to a belief that one's personal interests are served best under that system. One's acceptance of a nation's school system, for example, as an institution that is legitimately empowered to confer success or failure in the labor market ultimately should amount to more than the mere expectation of private rewards for completing school. If social institutions are accepted as legitimate in this way, then there are obvious implications for the connection between consciousness and social structure. In Marxist perspectives—both the functionalist and those based on rational-action theory—ideology consists of beliefs about society that are derived from one's class situation. The Weberian view, however, emphasizes that some of the most salient features of society—its bureaucratic institutions—exist only in and because of individuals' beliefs. A different set of analytic tools is thus needed to understand the loss of confidence in these institutions and the consequent origin of rebellions.

The most explicit treatment of the educational system as a form of bureaucratic legitimation is presented by Meyer (1977:66), who argued that "educational systems themselves are . . . ideologies. They rationalize in modern terms and remove from sacred and primordial explanations the nature and organization of personnel and knowledge in society." Meyer's point, overlooked by functionalists generally, is that an institution does not process and socialize only the individuals who voluntarily attach themselves

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to it. That is, the institution of education affects nonstudents as well as students by forcing all youths into a ranking in the hierarchy of legitimate social knowledge. As Meyer (1977:74–75) explained

> The allocating power of the schools is one aspect of their status as social institutions creating and validating categories of personnel and knowledge. The schools increase the number and legitimacy of these categories—far beyond levels possible with more primordial myths of the origins of personnel and knowledge—and thus expand the whole rationalized modern social structure. These legitimating effects of schools reconstruct reality for everyone—the schooled and the nonschooled alike.

Irreversibly, the institution affects the ways that members of a society perceive one another in that the members are "more educated" or "less educated," according to the level of schooling they have attained. Thus, the integration of a society implies the marginalization of nonparticipants in the process of moving students closer to the center. ("Uneducated" is a term that is easily applied to highland Peruvians who have worked all their lives; "a educated" and "a schooled" are hardly imaginable even as words.) From a Weberian perspective, these allocative rules work because individuals accept them as legitimate—not, contrary to rational-action theory, because they invariably offer individuals strategies for maximizing private gains.

The preceding approaches to students' formation of beliefs entail alternative approaches to the analysis of Peruvian politics, as well. That bureaucratic institutions may owe their existence to legitimacy in the minds of individuals, rather than to the domination of a central authority, would be crucial in attempts to understand the ongoing rebellion by *Sendero Luminoso*. Political analysts of Latin America often argue that governments promote social welfare services as a substitute for more urgent basic reforms (see, for example, Collier 1976). Education, following this interpretation, is planned from the top down and serves the interests of governmental actors or the elite. Peru, however, is an interesting counterexample. With its 45 autonomous universities, Peru represents an extreme case of *unplanned* expansion in education, in which growth was fueled primarily by social demand.

In a study of Peruvian politics that was derived theoretically from Weber, Stepan (1981:3) defined the state as "the continuous administrative, legal, bureaucratic and coercive systems that attempt not only to structure relations between civil society and public authority but also to structure many crucial relationships within civil society as well." What seems problematic, if one accepts modern states as rationalizing societies in a Weberian sense, is Stepan's subsequent contention that "bureaucratic procedures may give power to the state to shape demands made by civil society on the state" (p. 3). Could this power govern the demand for increased educational opportunities by Peruvian youths or the threat to the system if these opportunities are not forthcoming? According to Stepan (1981:292), the institutionalization of a bureaucracy in Peru "implies a viable pattern where the majority of the weighty political actors are pursuing strategies to further their positions within the new institutional framework." Most of this explanation would indeed have been applicable to Peruvian education, at least until recently. All the participants in the system—the student syndicates, the family associations, teachers' unions, the planners within the Ministry of Education and, most important, individual young people—had, until recently, sought to advance their interests within the existing system. But at the crux of Stepan's problem of educational reform are questions that are also at the center of this article: Is the institution of education a viable pattern? Can it endure? Or will education and other Peruvian social institutions, failing to respond to the pressures of interest groups, eventually collapse? These questions lead back to the concern with the breakdown of legitimacy and to the origin of the rebellion in Peru.

HYPOTHESES

In Peru, as elsewhere, traditional occupations become unavailable to the younger generation with the encroachment of the national economy and the accompanying expansion of education. As an ever greater proportion of youths enter the labor market, the increasing certification required by employers fuels a further rise in the demand for higher education. What requires an explanation in this process is the continued acceptance of education as an institution that legitimately confers the means to earn a

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livelihood—an acceptance that seems out of keeping with what is known about the unequal operation of the Peruvian labor market (see Moore 1978:35). Under what conditions do Peruvians view their institutions as socially progressive and as just in terms of offering a better personal future? At what point will individuals begin to reject the system as illegitimate? If, as many Peruvian social scientists contend (Fernandez 1981; Muelle Lopez 1982; Verdera 1984), education ill serves the nation's youths today, students eventually will realize their poor prospects. What will happen if they do catch on, in Cohen's (1978) words, to the "true name of the game?" Instead of continued education, will they tend to prefer riskier structural change to realize their personal goals or to resolve national problems? More concretely, when students expect little personal benefit from a university education, are they unlikely to see the educational bureaucracy as legitimate?

Functionalist perspectives in Marxism look for direct associations between students' socioeconomic origins and their integration into the dominant hegemonic belief system organized through education. As Figure 1, Model A, indicates, marginality reduces the domination felt through educational participation.

Alienation from the dominant culture increases the likelihood that students who are marginalized in their linguistic, ethnic, or labor-market status will prefer radical and structural social changes to incremental or ameliorative ones. Most sociological studies of *Sendero Luminoso* are in this tradition (Degregori 1985; McClintock 1984). They focus on the abject poverty and the vital indigenous Quechua culture in areas where the movement recruits successfully. Such research thus posits a direct, functionally integral relation between belief and social origin. In a highly stylized formulation, its hypothesis is as follows:

> *Hypothesis 1:* Members of culturally or economically marginal groups are more likely to reject education as an avenue for social progress and to favor, instead, radical and alternative solutions to social problems.

Rational-action theory leads to a different hypothesis. The acceptance of education as socially progressive, in this interpretation, is linked to perceptions of the benefits of personal participation. The private benefits that individuals expect from education should also be expected to accrue for other participants and—in the aggregate—for society as a whole. Conversely, individuals who see little personal value in education would be more

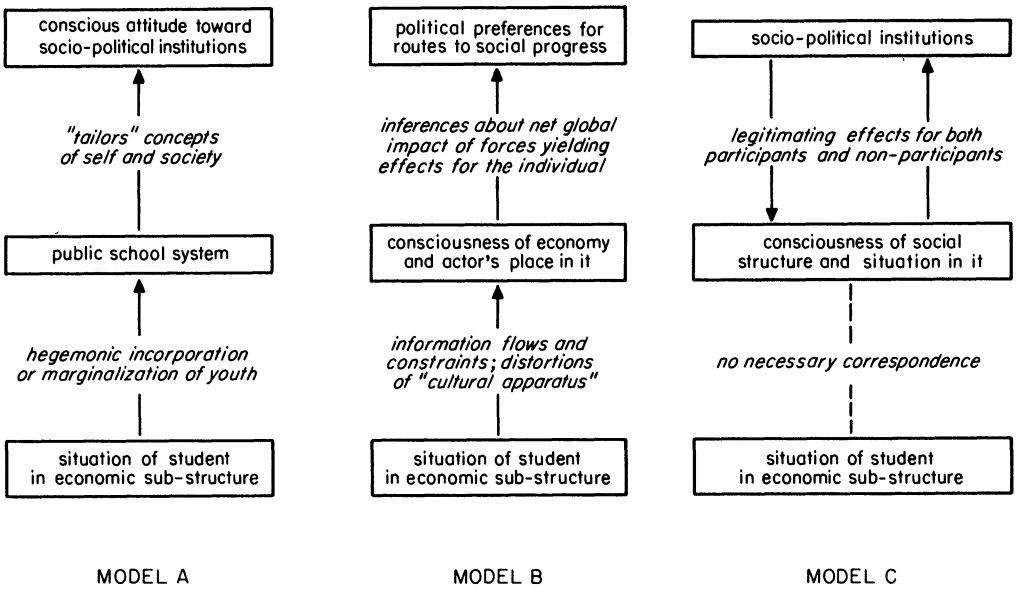

Figure 1. Three Models of Education in Political Socialization

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open to radical alternatives for society. Rational-action theorists acknowledge the effect of socioeconomic background on individuals' views of education and so their predictions might sometimes be compatible with those of functionalist Marxists. However, they consider background effects—when they do occur—to be operating through the mediating role of individuals' conscious expectations about education (see Figure 1, Model B). To neo-Marxists, these socially determined beliefs might constitute an ideology (see Elster 1982, 1985), or they might result, in the view of neoclassical economists such as Stigler (1961), merely from an unequal access to information. In either case, the resulting hypothesis, again in stylized form, would be as follows:

> *Hypothesis 2.* Individuals who expect personal benefit from participation in the educational system are more likely to perceive that system as socially progressive and, consequently, to disfavor alternative radical solutions. Individuals' expectations of personal benefit result, in part, from their social situation.

The third perspective on educational legitimacy, derived from Weberian sources, makes no prediction about direct or indirect effects of social background on attitudes toward education as an avenue of social progress. As an institution, education integrates participants and nonparticipants alike. By definition, *social integration* means that even persons who expect no personal reward from the institution of education nevertheless perceive it as a legitimate dispenser of rewards (see Figure 1, Model C). For the purposes of clarity, this idea can be expressed in a negative hypothesis:

> *Hypothesis 3.* Individuals who are marginalized by their ethnic or economic situations will be neither more nor less likely to view education as the appropriate avenue for social progress. Individuals who expect personal benefit from participation in the educational system are no more likely to perceive education as preferable to alternative, radical solutions.

FIELD STUDY

The city of Cuzco, an ancient capital, is one of the cultural and population centers of highland Peru and of the Andes. With the continuing destruction of the indigenous Inca economy in the nineteenth century, Cuzco lost nearly 65 percent of its colonial population. By 1904, only 13,500 inhabitants remained. But in the twentieth century, industry began to grow steadily, with textiles, tea, beer, and chocolate as the main products (Tamayo 1981). The earthquake of 1950 further stimulated modernization. By 1981, the entire *departamento* (the largest administrative unit in Peru) counted a population of 833,000. Of that number, 208,000 lived in the province (the largest unit within a *departamento*) of Cuzco. As both a city and a region, Cuzco maintains a vital pre-Hispanic heritage. In 1981, a majority of the residents were still native speakers of Quechua, the language of the Inca Empire.

The formal educational system of Cuzco is among the oldest in Latin America. The university, San Antonio Abad, dates to the colonial period. Two secondary schools, Ciencias for boys and Educandas for girls, were founded by the decree of Simon Bolívar in 1825; Educandas is said to have been the first republican secular school for girls in all South America. Until recent years, education, especially at the higher levels, was the preserve of a privileged elite in Cuzco. By the 1980s, however, the rates of participation had increased dramatically. Although the character of educational expansion is not the focus of this article, it can safely be said that social demand is the key. The provision of education by the state dropped during the 1970s: per-pupil expenditures plunged in terms of constant *inti* (the national monetary unit), as did the proportion of the national budget allocated to education. Yet, the proportion of youths who were seeking higher education grew prodigiously. The university-aged cohort increased roughly 33 percent from 1972 to 1981, while the number of applicants to San Antonio Abad soared from 1,600 to 9,000. Rightly or wrongly, Cuzco's young people have placed increasing faith in higher education as a way to realize their diverse goals in life.

One empirical issue to be addressed through field research is the relation between individuals' belief or "faith" in educational institutions and their attitudes about the resolution of national problems. But how might such faith in the efficacy of education be measured? Clearly, students choose to continue in school for a variety of reasons: prestige, lack of alternatives, enjoyment of study, and so on. However, it seems

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reasonable to assume that one motivation, shared by nearly all students, is the desire to get a good job. Readers who question this assumption may be more convinced after considering the specific programs sought by applicants to Peruvian universities. In 1981, of the 257,000 applicants nationally, 42 percent applied specifically to accounting, education, administration, economics, or law. Only 2.3 percent applied to programs in archeology, anthropology, theology, literature, art, history, or philosophy. Peruvians who seek higher education appear to be career oriented. Therefore, what needs to be gauged is the belief that education can help one find employment.

In June and July 1985, a sample of 15 secondary schools in the city of Cuzco and its four surrounding provinces was selected. The survey was part of a broader, national study on unemployment among youths, carried out in collaboration with the research institute of the Ministry of Education. Two different sampling procedures were used. In the city, a random sample of 5 state schools and 4 private schools was chosen. In the provinces of Anta, Urubamba, Calca, and Urcos, every state school was surveyed. In the city, two sections of graduating students were surveyed in each of the selected schools. In the provincial schools, the enrollment being much smaller, the questionnaire was applied to every graduating student in attendance.

The survey collected information in four areas: family background, perceived employment benefits of further study, and future plans. Students' preferences regarding solutions to national problems were indicated in response to a question offering a series of options that included "social revolution," "more education," "eliminating corruption," "change of government,"[1] and "other." Respondents were also free to mark a response, "there is no solution." Students were asked to choose only one option, but many marked two. In total, 997 codable questionnaires were collected.[2]

PREFERRED SOLUTIONS TO NATIONAL PROBLEMS

The largest single category of responses to the question about solutions to national problems was the option "more education." Depending on how one chooses to interpret overlapping responses, the options of "social revolution" or "change in government administration" were the next most popular answers. In the analysis reported later, the acceptance of social revolution is defined as the choice of that response option either alone or combined with some other option.

How best to relate the respondents' expected private educational benefit to their preference for education as a solution to national problems? Consider, as a proxy for expected benefit, the number of months that respondents expected would be needed to search for employment (hereinafter called "job-search time") that paid them, as university graduates, merely the government-established minimum wage for all workers (about 400 inti a month). The longer the students expect to wait, the less benefit they expect from education. Job-search time can then be crosstabulated by preferred solutions. In like fashion, these preferred solutions can also be crosstabulated by the upper and lower family-income halves of the sample. It is interesting that when the students' expected job-search times were crosstabulated with their political preferences, no relationship was clearly apparent. Nor did any direct association with family income appear; for both the upper- and the lower-income halves, the proportion of students who choose either "more education" or "social revolution" was about the same. A pattern did emerge, however, in a two-way contingency table. Although roughly the *same proportion* of lower- and upper-income students preferred "more education" and "social revolution" (about 25 percent each), there were marked differences between the two income groups in the *association* of these preferences with the expected job-search time. This contingency table (Table 1) shows the different effect of expected educational benefit on political outlook in each income group.

The solution preferred by students from more affluent families in the sample was not

[1] The survey was conducted in the months prior to the change in Peru's government and the inauguration of Alan Garcia with a legislature controlled by the American Popular Revolutionary Alliance.

[2] Details on the research methodology are presented in David Post, "The Social Demand for Education in Peru: A Study of the Micro-Foundations." Unpublished Ph.D. dissertation, University of Chicago, 1987.

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related to the length of time the respondents believed was needed to obtain employment. For both the pessimists and the optimists of this higher-income group, "more education," rather than "social revolution," was the preferred strategy for resolving national problems. With the less-advantaged students, however, the proportion who chose "social revolution" increased with the increase in the time that was thought necessary to find a job.

Another proxy of the expected benefit from education is the salary that the students expected to receive after graduating from the university. An analysis of the association between political outlook and these expected salaries uncovered a relationship that was similar to that presented in Table 1. A negative interaction was found between the roles of family income and expected utility. That is, the role of expected salary was large for poor students but small for affluent students. In itself, this finding is interesting, but it became even more noteworthy after the sample was disaggregated by the occupations of the respondents' fathers. When this procedure was followed, the interaction between the white-collar and lower-class samples became even larger, but the interaction *decreased* substantially within each occupational group.

A class-based, rather than an income-based, analysis may have greater explanatory power. Therefore, Table 2 presents the salaries that respondents expected they would earn after university graduation, disaggregated by their father's occupation. The means of these expected private benefits from education are then given for each of the four solutions to national problems. In the total sample, the expected salaries differed across groups of different political preferences. However, when the sample was divided to show class background, these differences turned out to be significant only in the lower-class subsample. For the children whose fathers had white-collar occupations, the choice of solutions was unrelated to salary expectations. But the contrary was found in the case of children from agricultural or working-class backgrounds.[3] This sample, although not large, showed a pronounced association between preferred solutions and salary expectations. Among these lower-income students, those who preferred "social revolution" expected low salaries after graduation. Students who thought "more education" was the best solution to Peru's problems expected higher salaries.

Table 2 also shows that students who were pessimists about national problems—those who responded, "no solution exists"—expected the *least* salary benefit from higher education. A theory of rational action, it is suspected, would provide a better explanation for the preferences of these students

Table 1. Proportion of Students Who Chose 'Social Revolution' and 'More Education,' by Search Time and Income Group

Search Time	Proportion of Students: Social Revolution	Proportion of Students: More Education	Income Group
Less than 4 months' search	.49 (72)	.51 (76)	Higher Income $\chi^2 = 0.34$
Greater than 4 months' search	.42 (19)	.58 (26)	
Less than 4 months' search	.42 (66)	.58 (91)	Lower Income $\chi^2 = 5.93$[a]
Greater than 4 months' search	.60 (44)	.40 (29)	

[a] Significant at the <.05 level.

Table 2. Expected Salaries with a University Degree[a]

Preferred Solution	(in inti) Working-class or Agricultural Families	White-collar Families	Total Sample
"There is no solution"	770 [31] (433)	790 [51] (756)	773 [95] (625)
"Social revolution"	885 [71] (501)	936 [117] (756)	909 [236] (629)
Other solution	975 [104] (969)	864 [170] (625)	886 [341] (719)
"More education"	1359 [79] (1713)	1023 [129] (758)	1082 [262] (1112)
F-ratio	3.34[b]	1.84	4.52[b]
Number	285	467	934

[a] Figures may not total because of missing values for father's occupation. Figures in parentheses indicate the standard deviation. Figures in brackets indicate the number of respondents.

[b] Significant at the <.05 level.

[3] That is, in the case of respondents whose fathers had occupations coded 600–700 (agricultural workers) or 700–900 (*obreros*, unskilled workers) in the Ministry of Labor's classification.

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than of the more affluent children of white-collar fathers.

Even though some students expected greater monthly salaries than did others, these differences would not necessarily correspond to different benefits or utilities, since one group is wealthier than another. If the respondents who preferred "more education" were more affluent than those who chose "social revolution," then the 1,359 inti salary expected by the affluent group could represent the same utility as the 885 inti salary represented to the poorer students. But a closer examination reveals that students who preferred "social revolution" actually had slightly *greater* family incomes than did students who preferred "more education." Thus, the personal benefits expected from education, measured either in absolute monetary terms or as a proportion of family income, were lower among the working-class students who chose "social revolution" over "more education" to solve national problems.

At this point, one might well ask why any dichotomy should be assumed between "more education" and "social revolution." Are they not compatible options? In the literacy crusades of Nicaragua, Brazil, or even of Peru during the early 1970s, "more education" was widely perceived *to be* a social revolution. The preference for "more education" cannot always be interpreted as a choice against radical change. But in the early 1980s, Peru was not another Nicaragua or a Brazil and it was also different from the way it was during the years of its own educational reform. The neoliberal educational rhetoric of the Acción Popular government, under five years of Fernando Belaunde Terry, eliminated earlier ideals of liberation or *concientización* through the process of education. Therefore, a working hypothesis can be that, in the minds of the 1980s Peruvian youths, revolution and education, indeed, represent opposing categories. Discriminant analysis (see Table 3) is a useful technique for testing such a hypothesis, as well as for gauging the relative effects of independent variables on the polytomous dependent variable of political outlook.

The discriminant function is the linear combination of exogenous variables that most successfully sorts and categorizes the polytomous dependent variable. Discriminant analysis was performed, using as discriminating (exogenous) variables the students' expectations of a benefit from their university education. The analysis was carried out twice: once for the children of white-collar and professional fathers and once for the children of farmers and laborers. Table 3 presents the group means along the discriminating function of each of the four types of responses. These means are indicated for each of the two class origins of students. In each class, the means shown are along the best of three functions calculated in terms of their success in distinguishing the respondents who held particular political outlooks. As was initially suggested in Table 2, Table 3 shows that the respondents who chose "social revolution" and "more education" were at opposite ends of the spectrum in the lower-class sample. Similarly, pessimists who marked "there is no solution" were at the furthest extreme on this function. The finding helps justify the analysis of the preferences for social revolution and more education as a dichotomy. The advantage offered by such a dichotomous variable is that the signs of the discriminant function coefficients are readily interpretable. Discriminant analysis is continued in Table 4, where a positive sign for the exogenous discriminating variables indicates an association with the choice of "more education." A

Table 3. Group Means on Best Discriminant Function, by Class

Preferred Solution	Working-class or Agricultural Background	White-collar, Professional Families
"There is no solution"	−.53	.38
"Social revolution"	−.29	−.05
Other solution	.05	.16
"More education"	.37	−.33

Table 4. Discriminant Analysis: 'More Education' versus 'Social Revolution' by Class

	Discriminant Function Coefficient	
Variable	Working-class or Agricultural Background	White-collar, Professional Families
Expected salary with a university degree	.62	.14
Respondent was female	.63	−.36
Speaks Quechua in the home	.23	.30
Salary of the head of the household	−.17	.83
Number of cases	124	209
Percentage classified	65	56

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negative sign, however, reflects a variable's influence on the preference for "social revolution." Notice that the explanatory power of the function, indicated by the percentage of cases classified successfully, is much greater for lower-class children. In addition, the explanatory value of the expected salary after graduation is far greater within the analysis of this lower-class sample.

Since there were two groups to be sorted in this discriminant analysis, a random sorting would succeed in predicting membership in half the cases. In the sample of students from blue-collar and agricultural backgrounds, the explanatory power of the analysis was significantly higher, that is, the membership of 15 percent more cases could be predicted than would have been possible randomly. In this group, the evaluation of private benefit from participation in the education system had important effects on the preference of political solutions. The larger the estimated salary after graduation, the more likely it would be that the student would prefer "more education" over "social revolution." Among students whose fathers had professional or white-collar occupations, however, little explanatory power was offered by the model. And what little explanation the model provided among the upper-income students came from the conservative effect of family wealth, which produced by far the largest coefficient.

It is interesting that sex seems to have had opposite effects in each of the two class groups. Being female made a lower-class student more likely to prefer "more education" but an upper-class student more likely to prefer "social revolution" as a solution to national problems. Perhaps girls from disadvantaged backgrounds have greater confidence in education than do girls from affluent homes because few educated women are present as models for poor girls. Alternatively, it simply may be that boys from poor families think they have less to lose from radical change than do boys from wealthier homes.

An additional finding of the discriminant analysis was that ethnicity, in and of itself, plays a minor role in determining political outlook. Students who spoke Quechua were only slightly more likely to prefer one option over another. In fact, to the extent that Quechua speakers were identified with any particular attitude, it was a conservative one: the coefficient is positive, indicating an association with education rather than with revolution. This finding may have implications for any assessment of the current rebellion in Peru as indigenous. It would be tempting to conclude that the apparent absence of direct background effects on political attitude constitutes a sufficient test of the hypothesis made by functionalist Marxists. Such a conclusion would be premature. In Latin America, selectivity bias makes testing that hypothesis highly problematic using survey data from secondary schools. Students from marginal ethnic and socioeconomic groups are unlikely to continue to the final year of secondary education. In the city of Cuzco, a majority of the cohort graduates from secondary school. However, in the rural areas surrounding the city, where six schools were sampled, only a minority complete secondary education. All that can be concluded is that the analysis provides greater support for rational-action theory than for Marxist functionalism, and this conclusion applies only to students from working-class and lower-income families.

DETERMINANTS OF EXPECTED BENEFIT

Rational-action theory leaves open the possibility that social background influences preferences indirectly. Background may affect political outlook through the mediating influence of the benefits expected from education. So, it might be asked, what determined the students' beliefs about the probable salaries that were reported in Table 2? Regression analysis was used to address this question, and its results are presented in Table 5. The dependent variable in each regression equation is simply the salary the respondent expected on graduation from the university and after searching for work for six months in the *departamento*.

Four exogenous variables were entered into the equation. The variable having the most significant effect, it is not surprising, was the salary that the student expected *without* a university degree. Individuals with high estimates of their potential wage as graduates of secondary schools also expected higher salaries as university graduates. Optimists were optimistic in either case, just as pessimists tended to expect lower salaries regardless of their level of education. This finding was observed equally for the sample

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Table 5. Regressions on Expected University Salaries, by Class

Variable	Coefficient (*T*-value) Agricultural and Working-Class Students	White-collar Students
Expected salary without a university degree	1.43[a] (13.47)	1.55[a] (20.56)
Father's monthly salary	.18[a] (4.59)	.05[a] (3.73)
Respondent lived in a rural province	−207.98 (−1.87)	−39.46 (−.64)
Days per week that the student read a newspaper	−56.88[b] (−2.11)	9.56 (.83)
Constant	506[a]	189[a]
Number	217	409
R^2	.50	.54

[a] Significant at the <.01 level.
[b] Significant at the <.05 level.

of youths from white-collar and from working-class and agricultural backgrounds.

Another variable that was entered into the regression was the income of the head of the household (usually the father). The fathers' monthly incomes affected their children's beliefs about the probable salary to be earned as a university graduate. Children from upper-income families tended to estimate higher salaries for themselves, while those from poor homes expected less. This relationship may be due to the fact that more-privileged students realized their advantage in obtaining the best jobs.

An alternative explanation, equally possible, concerns the relative nature of subjective utility. What one student views as a high salary might seem ridiculously low to another. A sum that is considered a large benefit by poor students will have far less utility to affluent youths. As was mentioned previously, intergroup differences in expected salaries do not necessarily imply differences in expected benefits. For this reason, one might anticipate that family income would be positively correlated with perceptions of salaries. Either explanation is consistent with the differential effect of the variable by social class. There are large differences between the two equations in the size of the income coefficient, which suggests a curvilinear relationship. Had the log of fathers' incomes been entered, rather than the raw income, differences in the coefficients might decrease between the groups of youths from working-class and white-collar families.

A third variable, almost but not statistically significant in the first equation, was a dichotomous indicator for residence in the rural area of the *departamento*, as opposed to the city of Cuzco. Salaries in Urubamba, Calca, Anta, and Urcos are probably lower than in Cuzco. That students are sensitive to these differences and estimate lower wages if they live in the provinces ought not to be surprising.

The most provocative finding of this analysis was the effect of the respondents' reading newspapers, which proxies access to information generally. Students were asked how many times each week their families bought newspapers and how frequently they read them.[4] The number of times they read newspapers was then entered into the regression equation. In a broader national study (Post 1987), the negative influence of information was seen to be more pronounced for the children of uneducated parents. When parents have had a higher education, their children have a ready source of information about the university and about what they realistically can hope to earn with a diploma. Children of parents with little formal schooling, however, may have unrealistic ideas about the salaries earned by university graduates unless they gather information outside the home. If this supposition is plausible, it should come as no surprise that the effect of reading newspapers is negative, given the declining benefits of a university education in recent years (for labor-market conditions in Peru, see Verdera, 1984; for a review of the education and

[4] In an earlier test, frequency of the family *buying* a newspaper was found to have large negative effects. The separate questionnaire item, indicating the times each week respondents actually read a newspaper, has even greater explanatory power. Perhaps the frequency that respondents actually do read newspapers in the home serves as a rough indicator of their willingness to take advantage of available information. This negative relationship was also noted by the author in a pilot study with a rural, coastal sample of students. See David Post, "Student Expectations of Educational Returns in Peru," *Comparative Education Review* 29 (May 1985), pp. 189–203.

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employment literature in Latin America, see Rama, 1983).

DISCUSSION

Alone, none of the perspectives on rebellion discussed in this article provides a satisfactory account of the preference by highland Peruvians for revolutionary change over educational expansion. In itself, this is not an inconclusive finding. On the contrary, the *differential* effect, by class origin, of expected benefits from education on students' political outlook helps to map out the fragmentary structure of Cuzqueño society. Social integration should imply a system in which even persons who expect no personal reward from the institution of education nevertheless perceive it as a legitimate dispenser of rewards. By this measure, the students in Cuzco are not fully integrated in a single society.

A corollary, macro-level question addressed in this research was whether Peruvian education has gained the legitimacy associated with a bureaucracy that not only has been installed but has been institutionalized. An analysis of the survey of Cuzco students leads one to doubt that education has yet established such legitimacy. It is true that the most visible political participants have acted within the framework of the bureaucracy. Their modus operandi is reflected in the mixed motivations of middle-class students who had become disillusioned with "more education" as the solution to national problems. When they prefer a "social revolution," these individuals make their choice on grounds other than expectations of the private benefit from participation in the system. The diverse influences on their political preferences can be interpreted as an acknowledgment of legitimate authority. However, for the marginalized students from lower-class backgrounds, the pattern is different. For students from working-class and agricultural backgrounds, the preference for political solution is closely linked to perceptions of private rewards from participation. Despite (or because of) the rapid expansion of education in Peru, the picture that emerges is one of a still poorly integrated society.

This article has been concerned with the foundations of belief, rather than of action, and little can be concluded about the applicability of models of "rational actors," "rational peasants," and so on to the actual rebellion by *Sendero Luminoso*. However, within the framework of methodological individualism, one crucial element is apparent from the findings of the Cuzco survey: consistency. Those lower-class students who expected little reward from further study were unlikely to favor "more education" as a solution to national problems. On the contrary, they became more open to a radical resolution. To functionalist theorists who associate the rebellion in Peru with the oppression of a marginalized indigenous population or with absolute poverty, the results of the Cuzco survey may seem surprising. Students from Quechua-speaking families were not particularly likely to prefer social revolution. And, among the lower class, students from poorer families were not especially supportive of a radical solution, although clearly it must be remembered that this group was more select, for only the most academically motivated poor children remained in the system to complete their secondary education. Functionalist theorists might be surprised that poor and indigenous students were not likely to favor a radical solution, but this would not be surprising to methodological individualists; the results show that calculations of the system's benefits are of central importance in explaining these students' political preferences.

The task for future researchers will be to analyze further the nature of students' expectations, particularly their beliefs about education in the labor market. How accurate are their beliefs? Further evidence is needed to address this issue. Are these beliefs determined by the subject's social situation? The negative effect of newspapers in the homes of lower-class students provides a clue to the results of such a study.

There remains the difficult issue of whether the beliefs and perceptions discussed in this article should be considered ideological. Although it often has been maintained that beliefs in the efficacy of education are ideologies, since they legitimate the status quo, recent critics, such as Boudon (1982) and Elster (1982, 1985) have emphasized that effects alone can never explain causes. Yet the "ignorance" of youths whose families seldom buy newspapers (or encourage other contact with information) is not random misinformation. If socially determined, should these legitimating beliefs be labeled ideolo-

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gies? Or should they be considered rational judgments that are formed on the basis of limited evidence—judgments that are based on information that perhaps was accurate in earlier years of economic development? The significance of these beliefs and their formation will be clarified only after an extension of the theory of rebellion.

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